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Does perception matter?: an empirical analysis of donor behaviour

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Does Perception Matter?: An Empirical Analysis of Donor Behaviour

ADRIAN SARGEANT, DOUGLAS C. WEST
and JOHN B. FORD

This article provides the first empirically based marketing model of the perceptions of givers and the resulting impact on donations. Within nonprofit marketing there is a considerable amount of extant research to support the view that both extrinsic and intrinsic variables can be used to separate givers and non-givers to charities. However, they are less useful in explaining how individuals select between the charitable alternatives and in understanding how people determine and apportion support. Perceptual factors offer more utility in this regard. Structural equations models are presented based on a survey of over 2,300 active and lapsed donors that link a series of perceptual determinants to four relevant charity performance measures: the total amount given to charity, the number of gifts given, the giving lifetime between the individual and the charity, and the amount given yearly. Marketing management implications are identified.

INTRODUCTION

This article examines the issue of how and why individuals elect to offer their help to others. According to Wispe [1978] it is a topic which has puzzled philosophers and economists since the 'dawn of antiquity'. This might be overstating the case, but nevertheless over the past 100 years several approaches have emerged from the economic, clinical psychology, social psychology, anthropology and sociological perspectives attempting to address this issue. It is only comparatively recently, however, that marketing's contribution to

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'giving' has been recognised and a succession of authors have now demonstrated its utility [Buzzell, 1970; Fox and Kotler, 1980; Lovelock and Weinberg, 1984; Kotler and Andreasen, 1987; Fraser, Hite and Sauer, 1988; Varadarajan and Menon, 1988; Guy and Patton, 1989].

Information on the motivation behind individual giving is of particular interest in the light of the growing scale and economic importance of donations to the nonprofit sector. In the UK through the period 1986–1996, aggregate charity income sourced from individuals rose 38 per cent in real terms from £2.6 billion to £3.6 billion (compared to real growth in overall GDP of 20 per cent in the same period [Pharoah, 2000]). In the United States the total value of gifts from individuals was \$159.32 billion in 1998/89 [AAFRC Trust 2000] with personal giving levels standing at 1.8 per cent of personal income. Indeed, when one considers that 80 per cent of the UK and 82 per cent of the US population give either time or monetary donations to nonprofits, the economic and social significance of the sector becomes readily apparent.

As was noted above, donor support of nonprofit organisations is typically offered either in terms of volunteering time, goods or offering monetary donations. There is also an emerging body of literature on the giving of body parts and blood [see for example Burnet, 1981; Pessemer, Beamon and Hanssen, 1977]. In this article, however, it is our intention to focus on monetary donations because of their significance in terms of their contribution to overall sector income. This limitation is also necessary, since as Green and Webb [1997] note, it is likely that the specific determinants of behaviour will vary widely by category of help offered.

Extant studies concerned with monetary donations have tended to regard the decision to donate (or not to donate) as the primary output from any model of giving behaviour. Whilst a few studies have addressed the factors driving the value of gifts much of the extant literature has focused on distinguishing donors from non-donors. This has clearly offered considerable utility, but fundraisers have become increasingly interested in (1) the level of the gift, (2) the likely lifetime value of the donor and, (3) the extent to which he/she may be persuaded to support the organisation for extended periods of time. These outputs will be fully addressed in this article.

Several studies have also made attempts to synthesise the available literature and to develop a broader perspective on how and why individuals give. Notable amongst these is the work by Guy and Patton [1989] and Burnett and Wood [1988]. These represent the first real attempts to develop composite models of giving behaviour, but both studies focused largely on the characteristics and motives of individual givers. Neither study fully addressed how beneficiary organisations might be perceived and the impact of such perceptions on subsequent behaviour. Since donors are becoming

ever more discriminating [Milne and Gordon, 1993], perhaps as a reaction to the increasingly diverse sets of stimuli to which they are exposed [Schmittlein and Peterson, 1994] it would seem appropriate to include this additional set of variables within any proposed model [Bendapudi, Singh and Bendapudi, 1996].

THE PRIMARY STUDY

The primary research process was conducted in three stages. The first (Phase I) was designed to elicit a list of relevant perceptual factors that could then be tested quantitatively to determine their impact on recorded giving behaviour. Phase I thus began with a series of eight focus groups each with 8–10 members and stratified by socio-economic group and age. The focus groups allowed the exploration of public perceptions of charities and the key variables that would impact on a decision to donate. Each group ran for around two hours and discussions were taped, transcribed and subjected to a content analysis employing QSR NUD*IST. This analysis suggested that three distinct categories of construct should be considered namely: (1) perceptions of charity in general, (2) perceptions of specific organisations, and (3) perceptions of the benefits (if any) that might accrue from support. The model being suggested here is illustrated in Figure 1. Each key category will now be discussed in turn. Selected quotations from the focus groups are offered for illustrative purposes rather than in a scientific manner.

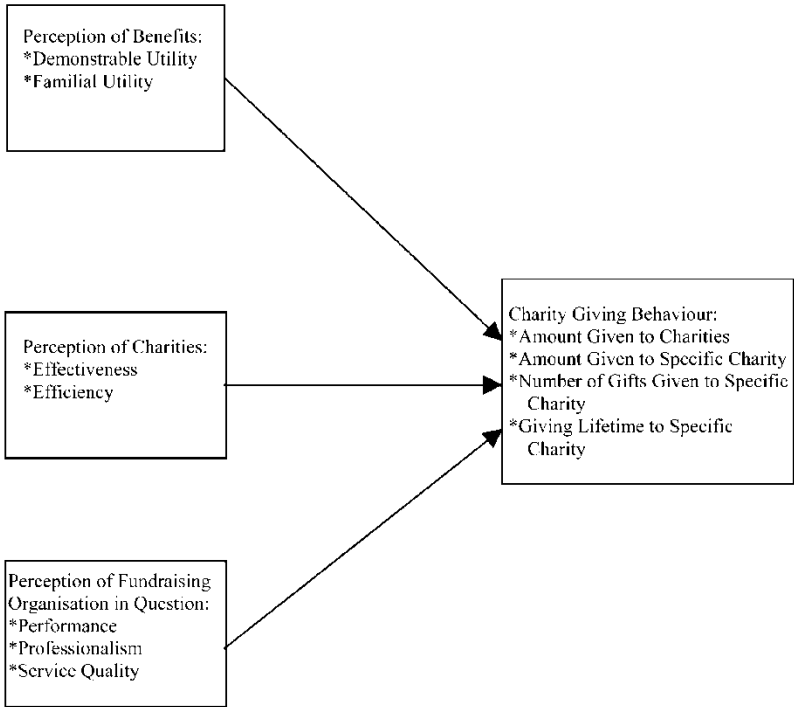
Perceptions of Benefits

Social exchange theory suggests that donors will often be motivated to give because they perceive that some benefits will accrue to them as a consequence of their gift [Krebs, 1970; Amos, 1982; Bar-Tel, 1976]. These benefits may be categorized as accruing either direct to the individual or indirectly because of the relationship between the gift and a family member/friend. Each will now be discussed in turn.

Demonstrable Benefits. The process of giving has often been viewed as the result of selfish economic considerations [e.g., Collard, 1978]. Those who subscribe to this school of thought believe that the desire to give is borne out of a wish to achieve some form of individual return. Donors will, therefore, select charities to support on the basis of whether they have benefited in the past or believe that they will do so in the future [Krebs, 1970; Frisch and Gerrard, 1981; Amos, 1982; Beatty, Kahle and Homer, 1991]. As noted by one focus group member (FGM): ‘They, [Charity X] saved a friend of mine a month back. I give to them now because I may just need their services one day myself.’

Donors may also evaluate potential recipient organisations against the extent to which their support will be visible, or noticeable by others within

FIGURE 1
PERCEPTUAL DETERMINANTS OF CHARITY GIVING BEHAVIOUR



their social group, thereby enhancing the donor’s standing [Stroebe and Frey, 1982]. Variables such as self-esteem and recognition have often been identified as key motivations for giving [Haggberg, 1992; Kotler and Andreasen, 1987; and Dowd, 1975]. ‘Prestige’ has also been noted as a primary determinant of giving behaviour with Dunlop [1997] reporting that a \$3 million donation to the New York City Children’s Zoo was ultimately revoked by donors who felt the organisation had devoted insufficient attention to recognition of the gift. This leads to the following hypothesis:

H1. There is a positive causal link between the degree of perceived demonstrable utility and donor giving behaviour.

Familial Utility. For some donors, the motivation to support charity derives from the motive of wanting to assist one’s friends or loved ones [Bruce, 1998; Sargeant, 1999]. Donations to a cancer charity, for example, may be motivated by a perception that somehow the gift might benefit a friend or

loved one that suffers from the disease. Take the case of one FGM who stated: 'We all in my family give to cancer charities. When Dad died we received a lot of support from the hospice. Now we want to give something back and help find a cure for others in his name.' Indeed, healthcare organisations have long recognised that donations may be motivated by a personal link to a cause, frequently offered in memoriam [Kotler and Clarke, 1987]. Consequently the following is offered:

H2. There is a positive causal link between the degree of perceived familial utility and donor giving behaviour.

Perceptions of Charities

Aside from the benefits that may accrue from giving, it became apparent from the focus groups that a donor's perception of the performance of 'charities' as a sector would also impact on giving. Those that see charities as a useful organisational form, contributing considerable value to society were felt, a priori, to be more likely to proffer a donation and indeed to offer higher sums. Indeed it was apparent from the focus groups that perceived performance was the key issue at both the level of the sector in determining giving and at the level of the organisation in determining which specific charities would be supported. In respect of the former, the perception of performance may best be conceptualised by examining both the effectiveness and efficiency of voluntary organisations.

Effectiveness. The extent to which charities achieve useful goals for society and are thus seen to be fulfilling their mission is a critical contributory factor in giving [Saxton, 1996]. Tonkiss and Passey [1999] argue that the extent to which a potential donor has 'trust' in the sector to deliver the outcomes it promises will drive subsequent giving behaviour. As noted by a number of FGM's: 'I'm very wary of supporting charities. I think there are too many of them and I'm not always clear what they do', and 'the problem with charities is that you don't always know where your money has gone. They don't always use it for the purpose they said they would . . . It doesn't encourage me to give.' Interestingly the perception of effectiveness has also been identified as an issue in psychology literature in the decision of whether or not to offer help [Latane and Darley, 1970; Shelton and Rogers, 1981; Miller, 1997]. Thus:

H3. There is a positive causal link between the degree of perceived effectiveness of nonprofit organisations and donor giving behaviour.

Efficiency. Successive studies have identified that the perceived efficiency of nonprofit organisations is a key determinant of giving behaviour [e.g. Glaser, 1994; Harvey and McCrohan, 1988]. This may be best illustrated by one

FGM who stated: 'I think charities can be very wasteful sometimes. You can always find examples in the press of where money has been wasted on fundraising or staff salaries. I hate that – charities should get the money through to the cause.' Two others added: 'They [charities] should spend less on expensive campaigns and sending out all that mail. It can't be right sending me pens, stationery and gifts. How much does this all cost?' And 'I would give far more if I had confidence that all the money would get through to the beneficiaries.' It is interesting to note that focus group participants had a clear perception of both the performance of the sector and the performance of specific organisations. Both factors appeared to drive how much people were willing to give. We, therefore, posit:

H4. There is a positive causal link between the degree of perceived efficiency of nonprofit organisations and donor giving behaviour.

Perception of the Fundraising Organisation

As has been noted above, the focus group data suggests that a range of factors pertaining to perceptions of a specific voluntary organisation determine how worthy of support a given individual would believe it to be or not. The three most prevalent factors to emerge from our analysis were the perceived performance of the specific organisation in achieving its goals, the overall professionalism/reputation of its management and the quality of service provided to donors by the fundraising department.

Performance. Perceived performance is as much an issue in deciding amongst the alternatives available as it is in determining support for the sector as a whole [Sargeant and Kaehler, 1998; Wise, 1997]. Following the Aramony scandal in 1992, for example, donations to the United Way fell dramatically as the public perceived that their funds had been squandered. Moreover, Glaser [1994: 178] found that the variable 'an adequate amount spent per program' was the most important factor in the decision to contribute to specific charitable organisations. Donors appear to have a clear idea of what represents an acceptable percentage of income that may be applied to both administration and fundraising costs. Warwick [1994] identified that donors most expect that the ratio between administration/fundraising costs and so-called 'charitable expenditure' would be 20:80. It is interesting to note that despite this expectation most donors believe that the ratio is closer to 50:50. Furthermore, it has been found that 60 per cent is a significant threshold. Charities spending this ratio of their donations on charitable programs tend to achieve significantly higher levels of donation [Harvey and McCrohan, 1988]. Therefore:

H5. There is a positive causal link between the perceived relative performance of a nonprofit organisation and donor giving behaviour.

Professionalism. The perceived professionalism of an organisation may also impact on the voluntary funds it is able to attract. Charities with well-known 'household' names with good management will engender more support than those who lack this perception [Grounds and Harkness, 1998; Saxton, 1996]. One FGM noted: 'I prefer to give to organisations that I know – that I know are well managed. I just don't trust organisations I've never heard of.' Other members of the group indicated that they felt it was important for a charity to demonstrate the quality of its management and that they would look for evidence of this before making a donation. Thus:

H6. There is a positive causal link between the perceived professionalism of a nonprofit organisation and donor giving behaviour.

Service Quality. Burnett [1992] argued that the quality of service provided by fundraisers was paramount in facilitating second and subsequent gifts. He also argued that allowing donors choice over the pattern of communication received and reflecting their needs and interests would tend to stimulate higher levels of giving. Whilst he offered no empirical support for these assertions many of the themes he noted were reflected in the results of our focus groups. As one FGM said: 'Sometimes I'll ask questions and wait to see if I get a personal response or just a standard letter. When you give over a £1000 per year you expect them to take a little care. If they don't I'll just stop my support.' Indeed flexibility and choice were seen to be the key to continued support. As noted above there is little empirical support for this proposition in extant studies, but it has also been suggested that higher value donors place greater emphasis on an organisation's perceived responsiveness to their needs [Sargeant and MacKenzie, 1998; Burlingame, 1997]. Thus:

H7. There is a positive causal link between the degree of perceived quality of service provided by a nonprofit organisation and donor giving behaviour.

METHOD

Phase II of the research comprised identifying the appropriate scales to measure the constructs. A review of the pertinent literature suggested an appropriate pool of 50 items to measure the constructs. This item pool was then subject to scrutiny by a panel of judges. Each judge was provided with a definition of each construct and asked to categorise each item according to these definitions. Following Pritchard, Havitz and Howard [1999] panel members were also required to appraise each item for its appropriateness and clarity on a measurement scale from 1–5. A consensus in respect of categorisation, fit and clarity ratings (i.e. 4 or above) was sufficient to admit items

to the final item pool in each case. This process concluded with the retention of 43 items. Five point numeric bipolar scales ranging from 1 = strongly disagree, to 5 = strongly agree were then attached to each statement.

A convenience sample was chosen for the purposes of scale purification comprising of 1,000 individuals working in three London based firms who had given to nonprofits. Questionnaires were distributed by managers and returned to a central point for collection and processing. Subsequent analysis revealed 25 questionnaires that were incomplete or unusable, resulting in final sample of size of 975.

Scale purification procedures were then applied to the scales. Survey responses were split into two halves to cross validate any decisions that might be made in respect of item reduction [Pritchard, Havitz and Howard, 1999]. The procedure began with an analysis of alpha co-efficients for each set of attitudinal statements. It was decided to eliminate items which improved corresponding alpha scores to the point where all retained items had corrected item to total correlations greater than 0.4 [c.f. Zaichowsky, 1985]. This process was cross validated between samples and items common to both split samples were retained, resulting in a pool of 35 items. Each set of items was then subject to an exploratory factor analysis (principal axis factoring with a VARIMAX rotation). Cattel's scree test indicated that 7-factor solutions were preferable in each case. Factor structures appeared consistent, although a number of mixed item themes initially emerged. To eliminate this issue a further reduction of scale items was undertaken and the analysis repeated. A common core of 28 items was generated.

Finally, both samples were combined to re-examine internal homogeneity. It proved necessary to remove a further three items. The remaining 25 statements were then subjected to a further principal axis factoring with the solution restricted to seven factors in each case. Eigenvalues of greater than 1 were recorded for each factor and no cross loadings were reported. The refined scales for each of the constructs are presented in Appendix 1. The findings represent a parsimonious representation of the data, however, the internal validity of each set of items requires additional substantiation through the use of confirmatory techniques.

Phase III of the research set out to test the model depicted in Figure 1. Data were obtained from a six-page mail questionnaire sent to 10,000 active and lapsed givers (donors) by name. A sample of 1,000 individuals was selected from the databases of 10 national, well-known and leading charities, representing a diverse range of causes. Considerable negotiation was required to gain this access. The sample was further stratified to ensure an even balance between donors who were currently active and those that had lapsed. This allowed the researchers to test the impact of the factors described above on a wide range of dependent variables, including actual lifetime value in the case of lapsed supporters. Thus in aggregate questionnaires were sent to

5,000 active charity donors and 5,000 lapsed donors. A lapsed donor was defined as a donor who had not given to the charity concerned during the past 18 months. Different variants of the questionnaire were sent to lapsed and active supporters; it being necessary in the case of lapsed supporters to phrase questions about the relationship with the organisation in the past tense. Responses were measured on 5-point Likert scales. The questionnaire was initially developed in liaison with ten senior charity executives.

After one mailing 2,340 replies were returned, providing a usable response rate of 23.4 per cent. However, it was not possible to assess the extent of non-response bias [Baalbaki and Malhotra, 1995] with respect to primary demographics (e.g., gender, age and employment) owing to the random method of sample selection and the low level of information held on the charity databases. However, potential non-response bias was checked following the early vs late method suggested by Armstrong and Overton [1977], with a chi-square of the responses for the first 25 per cent of the respondents being compared to the final 25 per cent. The tests revealed no significant differences ($p > 0.10$) between these two groups on any of the research variables. It was not possible to undertake a second follow-up mailing to improve response because the charity partners would not permit this indicating that they did not wish their donors to feel 'pressured' or obligated to respond. Giving histories (drawn from the charity databases) were matched *post hoc* to questionnaire responses (using postcode data) making it possible to add the following variables to the dataset: date of first donation; date of last donation; total amount given (to the charity in question); number of gifts; giving lifetime (date of donation–date of first donation) and the average annual amount given over the giving lifetime.

It is important to note here that we felt that it was important to assess the perceptions of both active and lapsed givers to thoroughly understand the nature of giving behaviour. The access to the charitable institutions allowed for the effective calculation giving related variables and thus the expectation was for us to use the same perceptual determinants for both groups but with different measures of giving behaviour. The model for active givers included giving behaviour as an unobserved exogenous variable with two observed components: the amount reported by the respondent as given to charity in general over the past year and the average annual amount actually given to the charity in question. On the other hand, the model for lapsed givers included three different measures for giving behaviour assumed to be appropriate for givers who once gave to the charity in question but had stopped giving. These measures were the number of gifts given to that charity, the total amount given by the individual to the charity in question and the giving lifetime in years for the respondent with the charity in question.

In order to test the nine hypotheses, two different structural equations models were run using the various construct measures as independent

variables for both models but with different measures of giving behaviour as the dependent construct in question.

Model Specification

However, the first step in the process involved confirming the structure of the measurement scales employed. Since the scales were common for all respondents a global confirmatory analysis was run using AMOS 4.0. In order to prepare the data for analysis, missing cases were removed using listwise deletion. This brought the sample size down to 720 (509 active givers and 211 lapsed givers). When the confirmatory analysis was run, modification indices were examined. It became apparent that a number of changes were desirable to the model specification. A problem of multicollinearity was encountered between the two constructs dealing with perception of charity performance, 'effectiveness' and 'efficiency'. It was apparent that whilst these two aspects of performance were conceptually distinct, donors were unable to distinguish between these different facets. To eliminate this problem, 'efficiency' was deleted. The constructs 'performance' and 'professionalism' were also examined for problems, and redundancy was again indicated between the two constructs. It was decided to delete 'performance' due to high modification indices for a number of the items associated with that construct.

The newly re-specified model thus contained five independent constructs/scales: 'demonstrable utility', 'familial utility', 'effectiveness', 'professionalism' and 'service quality'. With the elimination of the redundant scales, confirmatory factor analysis was again run using AMOS, and the remaining constructs and their corresponding items were analysed for possible re-specification. The confirmatory factor analysis for the re-specified model ran smoothly. The fit indices were all above the requisite levels of 0.90 or higher, and there were no further indications of problematic items.

The Structural Equations Models

As previously stated, the final model configuration involved the same independent constructs for both populations, but the dependent variable in question, giving behaviour, was measured differently for the two relevant samples of respondents. Further analysis of the data revealed that a number of the dependent variables were highly skewed. To improve the model fit a log transformation was undertaken of the total amount given to charity in general and the total amount given to the participating organisation. This is consistent with the approach of Lindahl and Winship [1992]. The hypothesised structural equations models were run using AMOS 4.0, and the models were both found to have good fit. Neither of the chi-square statistics were found to be

significant; however, this is undoubtedly due to the large sample sizes involved.

In the case of the active giver model the goodness of fit measures run from a low of 0.912 for the RFI to a high of 0.934 for the IFI, and these are considered to be good fit levels. The model paths and standardised estimates are shown in Figure 2. In the case of the lapsed model (presented in Figure 3) a similar high degree of fit was reported. In each case the pathways were all found to be significant in the hypothesised directions, except for

FIGURE 2
MODEL OF DONOR GIVING TO A PARTICULAR CHARITY FOR ACTIVE GIVERS
(N = 509)

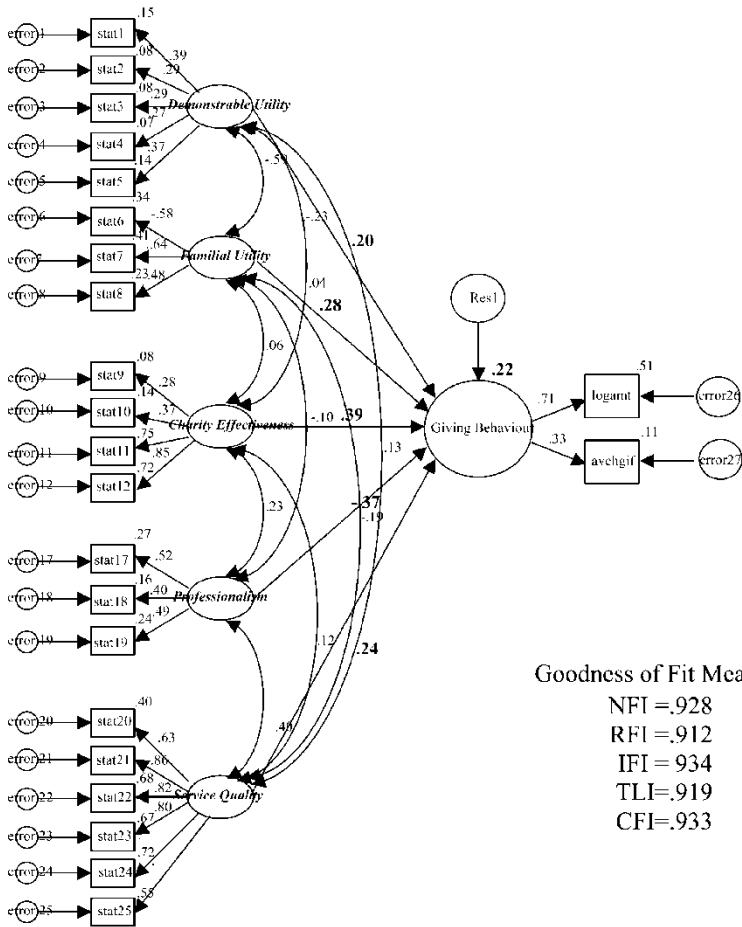
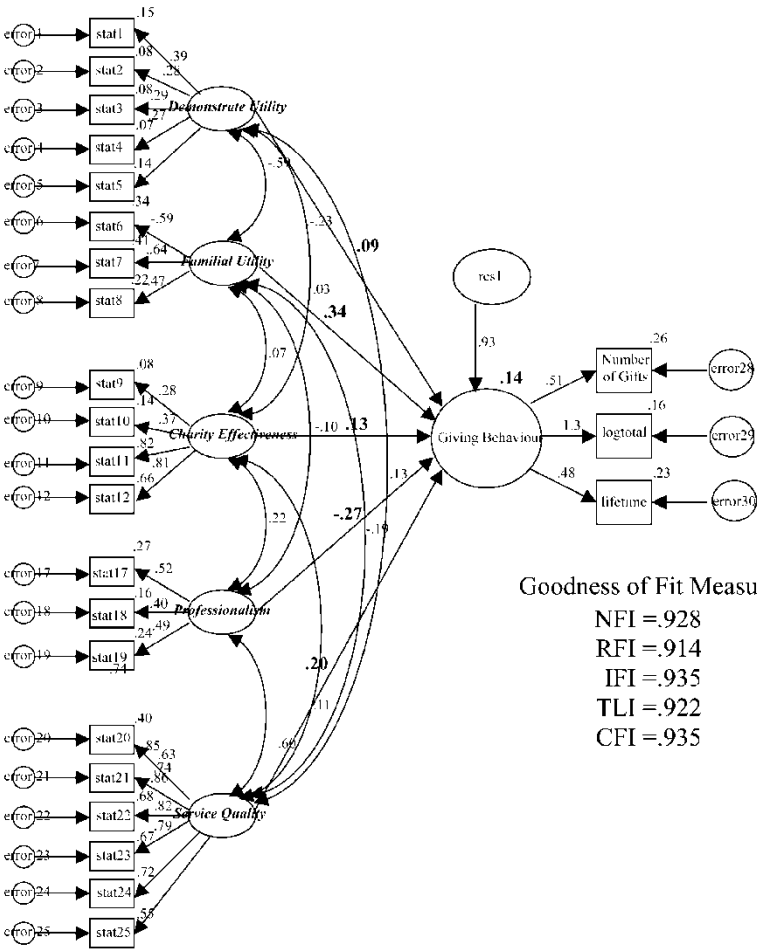


FIGURE 3
MODEL OF DONOR GIVING TO A PARTICULAR CHARITY FOR LAPSED GIVERS
(N = 211)



professionalism. It was hypothesised that the link was a positive one; however, the link was found to be negative. This would indicate that the higher the perceived professionalism of the charity, the lower the possible giving. This could reflect that donors are unwilling to support voluntary organisations whom they feel resemble business organisations in the style and nature of their management. All other links were found to be positive as hypothesised. One interesting correlation found here was the negative correlation (-0.59) between demonstrable utility and familial utility. This makes some intuitive sense

since someone giving *in memorium* might be less concerned with the more tangible benefits of giving and vice versa.

IMPLICATIONS

The research instrument developed for this study provides charities with an easily administered tool for measuring key perceptual determinants that have been shown here to impact on giving. The scales developed for this research may be used by voluntary sector managers to supplement their traditional dependence on demographic and behavioural indicators of how much a given individual might be worth to their organisation.

It seems clear that the amount a donor might be willing to give to a particular voluntary organisation is driven by a complex set of causal factors. Factors such as the demonstrable/familial utility deriving from the gift, organisational effectiveness, the perceived professionalism of an organisation, together with the quality of service supplied, all have the capacity to influence gift levels and the longevity of the donor–nonprofit relationship. Fundraisers seeking to strengthen giving should seek to maximise any or all of these antecedents with the notable exception of professionalism. Indeed this is latter facet of our study is a particularly interesting result since it would appear that organisations that appear (on the face of it) to be more ‘amateurish’ and perhaps less like business organisations would be likely to be deemed more worthy of support. Further work would clearly be warranted here to clarify the nature of this aspect of the image of voluntary organisations since the implications for the sector as a whole are profound.

A further interesting aspect of the findings is the nature of the relationship between demonstrable utility and familial utility. The two constructs were found to be negatively correlated suggesting that donors motivated by one, would tend not to be motivated by the other. This implies that managers should consider segmenting the nature of the fundraising ‘ask’ reflecting the balance of motives in the database. Donors motivated to give because of family ties to the organisation are likely to respond to rather different messages than those without such a motivation.

The results are also noteworthy since they suggest that our perceptual constructs impact on a variety of giving related variables. This is the first study that has modeled *actual* lifetime value in this context and *actual* amounts donated each year. This is significant since recent work conducted by Rooney [1999] draws into question a donor’s ability to accurately recall this information. Many extant studies have relied on self-reporting and/or attitudinal surrogates such as ‘intention to donate’.

However, whilst a clear relationship has been highlighted between our perceptual constructs and giving behaviour it is important not to overstate the role

of these constructs in facilitating higher levels of giving. The proportion of behaviour explained by these models is relatively modest and fundraisers looking to increase the level of gifts accruing to their individual organisation would be thus be well advised to consider demographic and lifestyle indicators of higher value giving, now well documented in the literature [see for example Schervish, 1997; Schervish and Havens, 1995]. The utility offered by the present study lies in enhancing practitioner understanding of how constructs they can *influence* can enhance giving. Whilst one could certainly use demographics and lifestyles to target higher value givers, such research offers very little utility in terms of suggesting how fundraisers might optimise their pattern of giving thereafter. Issues such as perceived service quality, effectiveness and demonstrable utility, by contrast, may all be reflected in and shaped by appropriate charity and fundraising communications.

From a managerial perspective, our study suggests that fundraisers should ensure that they understand the primary motives for their support and in particular the package of benefits that may be being sought. Segmentation of both recruitment and donor development campaigns might then be warranted. Whilst as Burnett [1992] notes, this often takes place in the case of recruitment, most charities adopt the same development strategy thereafter. Our results suggest that greater value will ensure from the relationship if enhanced segmentation is attempted. Our results also suggest that all charities and perhaps sector umbrella bodies such as the NCVO (National Council of Voluntary Organisations) and CAF (Charities Aid Foundation) should stress the levels of performance the sector is able to achieve. The results suggest that the more favourable the public perception of charities, the greater will be the level of support. Finally, we have demonstrated that the level of delivered service quality is as much an issue in the context of donor-charity relations as it is in the commercial context between business and customer. The higher the quality of perceived service the greater will be the loyalty exhibited and sums donated. Charities are therefore advised to measure and monitor the quality of service provided and to take remedial action where necessary.

However, it is important here to express a number of caveats in respect of our research. As noted above we were unable to increase the response rate to our postal survey employing a standard follow-up due to understandable reticence on the part of our charity partners. The high proportion of non-respondents to the survey may thus have led to a degree of non-response bias, although we were able to perform some standard procedures to test for this.

It should also be noted that this study was conducted in only one country. Thus the ability to generalise the findings to other contexts may be called into question. Whilst the results are intuitive, it would be helpful to attempt to replicate these findings in other countries and indeed with other categories

of giver. Our sample comprised donors on the fundraising database in each case, but it would be particularly fruitful in subsequent research to examine specific categories of givers, such as major givers. This would certainly be the case in the U.S. where a large proportion of a typical nonprofit's income is derived from a small number of high value givers.

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APPENDIX 1: CONSTRUCT SCALE ITEMS

Construct Statements

Perception of Benefits. Demonstrable Utility

- 1) Supporting charity allows me to seek repentance for my sins (Stat1).
- 2) Sometimes I give to charities to gain local prestige (Stat2).
- 3) I donate money to charities to receive their publications (Stat3).
- 4) Contributing to charity enables me to obtain recognition (Stat4).
- 5) I donate money to charities because it makes me feel needed (Stat5).

Familial Utility

- 1) I give money to charity in memory of a loved one (Stat6).
- 2) I felt that someone I know might benefit from my support (Stat7)
- 3) My family had a strong link to this charity (Stat8).

Perception of Charities in General. Effectiveness of Charities

- 1) My image of charitable organisations is positive (Stat9).
- 2) Charities have been successful in helping the needy (Stat10).
- 3) Charities perform a useful function for society (Stat11).
- 4) Charities do good things for the community (Stat12).

Efficiency of Charities (*reverse coded*) – Not included in final models due to redundancy

- 1) Many charitable organisations are dishonest (Stat13).
- 2) Much of the money donated to charities is wasted (Stat14).

Construct Statements

Perception of the Fundraising Organisation in Question. Performance – Not included in the final models due to redundancy

- 1) This charity is the charity most likely to have an impact on this cause (Stat15).
- 2) This charity spends a high proportion of its income on this cause (Stat16).

Professionalism

- 1) I believed this charity's management to be professional (Stat17).
- 2) I felt that this charity had a good reputation (Stat18).
- 3) I found this charity's original approach to me professional (Stat19).

Service Quality

- 1) This charity always responds promptly to requests I might have for information (Stat20).
- 2) Employees at this charity re never too busy to speak with me (Stat21).
- 3) Employees in this charity are always courteous (Stat22).
- 4) Employees in this charity have the knowledge to answer your questions (Stat23).
- 5) This charity gives you individual attention (Stat24).
- 6) When I have a problem, this charity shows an interest in solving it (Stat25).